

Analysis of a Rudimentary Adaptive Cruise

Control System in a Model Car

Introduction

Adaptive Cruise Control (ACC) systems represent a significant advancement in automotive technology, enhancing both driver comfort and safety by automating the regulation of vehicle speed to maintain a safe following distance from preceding vehicles.¹ This technology is increasingly recognized as a fundamental building block for future intelligent and autonomous vehicles.³ The growing prevalence of ACC in modern automobiles, with over 60% of 2023 models equipped with this feature⁵, underscores its importance and acceptance within the automotive industry. Contemporary ACC systems rely on a suite of sensors, including radar, laser (LIDAR), and cameras, to perceive the surrounding environment.³ These sensors enable the vehicle to detect the speed and distance of other vehicles and to react autonomously to changes in traffic flow.

This report focuses on a small-scale implementation of these principles in a model car developed using basic electronic components. The model incorporates an Arduino Uno microcontroller, ultrasonic sensors, Hall Effect sensors, a motor driver, gear drivers, and a four-wheel drive (4WD) chassis. This project serves as a practical demonstration of the core concepts underlying complex ACC systems found in full-sized vehicles. By utilizing readily available components, the fundamental functionalities of distance maintenance, speed regulation, and obstacle detection can be explored in a tangible and simplified manner. The objective of this report is to provide a detailed explanation of the technology and the implementation approach employed in this rudimentary ACC model, covering the

fundamental principles of ACC, the technical specifications and operation of each component, and their integration to achieve the basic ACC features. The report will also address the inherent limitations of such a system when compared to advanced commercial ACC technologies.

Fundamental Principles of Adaptive Cruise Control (ACC)

The core of Adaptive Cruise Control lies in its ability to automate both the longitudinal control of a vehicle, managing its speed through acceleration and deceleration, and the maintenance of a safe following distance from vehicles ahead.⁴ This automation significantly reduces the workload on the driver and has the potential to improve traffic flow.² A key aspect of ACC is its dynamic nature, allowing it to adjust the vehicle's speed not only to maintain a set cruising speed but also to respond intelligently to the surrounding traffic conditions.¹ For instance, if a slower vehicle is detected in the same lane, ACC will automatically decelerate to match its speed, ensuring the pre-selected following distance is maintained.¹ Conversely, when the vehicle ahead speeds up or changes lanes, ACC will accelerate back to the driver's desired speed.¹ Some advanced iterations of ACC even possess the capability to adapt the vehicle's speed based on the speed limits posted on road signs.⁹

A critical element enabling these functionalities is the system's ability to detect other vehicles and obstacles in its path.¹¹ This is achieved through the use of various sensors, such as radar, laser, and cameras, which continuously scan the road ahead to identify potential hazards.⁴ The data gathered by these sensors forms the basis for the ACC system's decisions regarding speed adjustments and distance keeping. The integration of automated longitudinal control and dynamic distance adjustment, based on the detection of preceding vehicles, marks ACC as a significant evolution from traditional cruise control systems, which are limited to maintaining a constant, driver-set speed.¹

Full-scale ACC systems commonly utilize a combination of sensor technologies to achieve a robust understanding of the driving environment. Radar-based sensors are frequently employed due to their capacity to accurately measure both the distance and speed of vehicles ahead by emitting radio waves and analyzing the reflected signals.³ These systems offer a broad field of view and maintain their effectiveness across a range of weather conditions, including fog and rain.³ Operating at frequencies like 24GHz or 77GHz, radar can typically measure distances exceeding 160 meters.³ Laser-based sensors, also known as LIDAR, provide high accuracy and the longest detection range among ACC sensors through the use of light detection and ranging technology.³ However, LIDAR's performance can be compromised in adverse weather such as rain or snow, as these conditions can absorb or scatter the laser light.³ Additionally, LIDAR may struggle to track vehicles that are dirty or have non-reflective surfaces.³ Camera-based systems, often employing front-facing video cameras, use digital image processing to extract depth information.³ These systems are particularly adept at recognizing the shape and classification of objects and can reliably detect when a vehicle ahead is applying its brakes.³ While increasingly used for lane centering functionalities, cameras also contribute to ACC, sometimes in conjunction with other types of sensors.³

Modern ACC systems often integrate data from multiple sensor types through a process known as sensor fusion to create a more reliable and accurate perception of the driving environment.³ By combining the strengths of radar, lidar, and cameras, the system can mitigate the weaknesses inherent in each individual sensor. For example, radar's resilience in various weather conditions can complement lidar's precision and cameras' ability to recognize objects, resulting in a more dependable and versatile system.

The control strategies employed by ACC to adjust a vehicle's speed are based on sophisticated algorithms that process the input from these sensors.¹⁷ These algorithms

consider the driver's set cruising speed, the desired following distance, the speed and distance of the vehicle in front, and potentially even road conditions.¹⁸ To regulate speed, ACC can modulate the engine's throttle by releasing the accelerator or, when necessary, by actively engaging the vehicle's braking system.² The aim of these adjustments is typically to be smooth and gradual, but in certain situations, the system may need to apply more forceful braking to ensure a safe distance is maintained.¹⁹ Furthermore, some advanced ACC systems incorporate predictive capabilities, allowing them to anticipate the actions of other vehicles based on their movement patterns and signals such as brake lights or turn indicators.³ This predictive ability enables earlier and more subtle adjustments to speed, which enhances both safety and the comfort of the vehicle's occupants. While ACC is designed to emulate human driving in maintaining a safe and comfortable following distance, it is crucial to remember that it remains a driver assistance system. The ultimate responsibility for the safe operation of the vehicle rests with the driver, who must always remain attentive and prepared to intervene should the system fail to react appropriately to a given situation.¹⁹

Technical Analysis of Core Components

The Arduino Uno serves as the central microcontroller in our model car's rudimentary ACC system. It is based on the ATmega328P microcontroller²², an 8-bit AVR family microcontroller²⁴, which operates at a clock speed of 16 MHz.²² This processing speed enables the Uno to execute instructions at a rate suitable for the real-time control required by the model car's functions. The board provides 14 digital input/output pins, six of which can function as Pulse Width Modulation (PWM) outputs.²² PWM is essential for controlling the speed of the DC motors used to propel the model. Additionally, the Uno features 6 analog input pins with a 10-bit resolution²², which can be utilized to read analog signals from sensors or other potential components. For program storage and data handling, the Arduino

Uno is equipped with 32 KB of Flash memory, 2 KB of SRAM for dynamic data, and 1 KB of EEPROM for persistent data storage.²² The microcontroller also supports various serial communication protocols, including UART (serial), SPI, and I2C²², which are vital for interfacing with the different sensors and modules incorporated in the project.

The Arduino Uno offers a sufficient number of digital I/O pins to effectively interface with the ultrasonic sensors, utilizing pins for both the trigger and echo signals. Similarly, the digital outputs from the Hall Effect sensors, used for wheel speed measurement, can be readily connected to the Uno's digital input pins. The six available PWM pins are adequate for controlling the speed of up to four DC motors through a motor driver module.

Furthermore, the analog input pins can be reserved for reading data from sensors that might provide analog outputs, allowing for potential future expansion or the use of different sensor types. The Uno's 16 MHz clock speed is generally adequate for the real-time control demands of a basic ACC system in a model car, facilitating the rapid processing of sensor data and the timely adjustments to motor control signals. While the Arduino Uno is a suitable choice for this introductory project due to its user-friendliness and extensive community support, its processing power and memory are limited compared to more advanced microcontrollers found in commercial ACC systems.²⁶ These limitations might pose constraints if the goal is to implement more complex ACC algorithms or to integrate a larger number of sensors and functionalities in the future. For more sophisticated systems, microcontrollers with faster clock speeds and larger memory capacities might be necessary.²⁶

Ultrasonic sensors, such as the HC-SR04, are employed in the model car to measure the distance to objects. These sensors operate by emitting a short burst of ultrasonic sound waves at a high frequency, typically around 40 kHz for the HC-SR04.²⁷ These sound waves propagate through the air and reflect upon encountering an object.²⁷ The sensor then measures the time interval between the emission of the sound wave and the reception of the

reflected wave, or echo.²⁷ The distance to the object is calculated using the formula: Distance = (Speed of Sound × Time) / 2. The speed of sound in air is approximately 340 meters per second (or 0.034 cm per microsecond), though this speed can be influenced by the ambient temperature.²⁸ The HC-SR04 sensor typically has four pins: VCC for 5V power, Trig which is an input pin used to trigger the emission of the ultrasonic burst, Echo which is an output pin that remains high for the duration of the echo, and GND for ground.²⁸ To initiate a distance measurement, a brief 10µs pulse is sent to the Trig pin, which prompts the sensor to emit an 8-cycle burst of 40 kHz ultrasound. The sensor then listens for the echo, and the duration of the high pulse on the Echo pin is measured to determine the travel time of the sound wave, which is then used to calculate the distance.²⁸

Ultrasonic sensors like the HC-SR04 are frequently used in robotics and hobbyist projects for tasks such as obstacle detection and proximity sensing due to their affordability and ease of integration with microcontrollers like the Arduino.²⁷ They offer a non-contact method for detecting objects within their operational range.²⁷ The HC-SR04 typically has a ranging distance of 2 centimeters to 4 meters, with an accuracy of approximately 3 millimeters.²⁸ This range is generally suitable for a small model car to detect nearby obstacles and potentially maintain a following distance at lower speeds. However, the accuracy of ultrasonic sensors can be influenced by several factors, including the surface characteristics of the object (e.g., soft or highly angled surfaces may not reflect sound waves effectively) and environmental conditions such as variations in temperature, air turbulence, and even ambient noise.²⁷ In a basic model car setup, these factors might introduce inconsistencies in the measured distance, which could affect the overall performance of the ACC system.

Hall Effect sensors are utilized in the model car to measure the speed of the rotating wheels. These sensors operate based on the Hall Effect, a phenomenon where a voltage difference, known as the Hall voltage, is produced across an electrical conductor carrying a current when

a magnetic field is applied perpendicular to the direction of the current.⁶² To measure the speed of a wheel, a small magnet is typically attached to the wheel or its rotating axle, and the Hall Effect sensor is positioned in close proximity to the magnet.⁶⁷ As the wheel rotates, the magnet passes by the sensor, causing a change in the magnetic field. The Hall Effect sensor detects this change and outputs a pulse signal.⁷⁰ By counting the number of these pulses within a specific time period, the rotational speed of the wheel, often expressed in Revolutions Per Minute (RPM), can be determined.⁷⁰ The frequency of the generated pulse train is directly proportional to the wheel's rotational speed.⁷³ While their primary function in this context is speed measurement, Hall Effect sensors can also offer limited information about the position of the rotating component. By using multiple sensors or a magnetic target with a specific pattern, it might be possible to infer the relative position or angle of rotation of the wheels.⁶³ Certain advanced Hall Effect sensors are specifically designed for precise position sensing.⁶³ The use of Hall Effect sensors for wheel speed measurement in the model car provides a contactless method, which is advantageous as it minimizes mechanical wear. Furthermore, their ability to detect speed even at zero RPM⁷⁵ could be valuable for accurately determining when the car has come to a complete stop, a crucial aspect for the stop-and-go functionality of more advanced ACC systems.

The motor driver plays a vital role as an interface between the Arduino Uno microcontroller and the DC motors that power the model car.⁹⁸ Microcontrollers like the Arduino are typically unable to directly drive DC motors because motors require higher voltage and current levels than the microcontroller can safely provide.⁹⁹ The motor driver addresses this by taking low-power control signals from the Arduino and amplifying them to the higher power levels necessary to operate the motors.¹⁰⁰ It enables the control of the DC motors' speed by utilizing Pulse Width Modulation (PWM) signals from the Arduino. By varying the duty cycle of the PWM signal sent to the motor driver, the average voltage supplied to the motor is adjusted,

thereby controlling its rotational speed.⁹⁹ Additionally, the motor driver facilitates the control of the motor's direction of rotation. This is commonly achieved through an H-bridge circuit integrated within the driver, which allows for the reversal of the voltage polarity applied to the motor terminals. Reversing the polarity changes the direction of the electric current flowing through the motor, thus altering its direction of rotation.⁹⁹ The motor driver interfaces with the Arduino Uno through several digital output pins. Typically, for each motor being controlled, two digital pins are used to manage the direction (e.g., IN1 and IN2), and one PWM-enabled digital pin is used to regulate the speed (often labeled as an Enable pin).¹⁰⁵ The motor driver requires its own power source to supply the necessary current and voltage to the motors, which is separate from the Arduino's power supply. However, it is essential to connect the ground of the motor power supply to the ground of the Arduino to establish a common electrical reference.¹⁰⁵ Some popular motor driver integrated circuits (ICs) used with Arduino projects include the L298N and the L293D.¹⁰⁶

Gear drivers, or gearboxes, serve a critical purpose in model cars by transmitting power from the electric motor to the wheels while simultaneously modifying the relationship between the motor's speed and torque output.¹²⁷ These mechanisms typically consist of a set of gears with varying numbers of teeth that mesh together to achieve the desired output characteristics. A fundamental parameter of a gearbox is its gear ratio, which is defined as the ratio of the number of teeth on the driven gear to the number of teeth on the driving gear.¹³⁸ This ratio dictates how the input speed and torque from the motor are transformed at the output, which in this case are the wheels of the model car. A higher gear ratio, achieved when the driven gear is larger than the driving gear, results in a reduction of the output speed and a corresponding increase in the output torque.¹²⁷ This is particularly advantageous for applications requiring high starting torque, such as accelerating from a standstill or climbing steep inclines, as well as for low-speed maneuvering.¹²⁸ Conversely, a lower gear ratio, where

the driven gear is smaller than the driving gear, leads to an increase in the output speed and a decrease in torque.¹³⁵ This configuration is more suitable for achieving higher top speeds on relatively level surfaces.¹²⁸ The selection of the appropriate gear ratio for the model car is a crucial aspect of its design, as it directly influences the vehicle's performance characteristics. By choosing suitable gear drivers, the output of the electric motors can be effectively matched to the desired speed and torque requirements for the ACC system, ensuring that the car can move as intended and respond appropriately to control commands.

The four-wheel drive (4WD) chassis of the model car is designed to provide power to all four of its wheels simultaneously.¹⁵⁷ This configuration offers a significant advantage in terms of traction and control, especially when operating on uneven, loose, or slippery surfaces, compared to traditional two-wheel drive systems.¹⁵⁷ By distributing power to all four wheels, the 4WD system enhances the vehicle's ability to maintain grip and stability, thereby reducing the likelihood of wheel spin and skidding.¹⁵⁸ This is particularly beneficial when the model car needs to navigate challenging terrains or during adverse weather conditions.¹⁵⁷

Furthermore, a 4WD system can improve the maneuverability of the small-scale vehicle by providing better grip and allowing for more precise control, especially when encountering obstacles or negotiating turns.¹⁵⁷ For the ACC implementation in our model car, the 4WD chassis ensures that the vehicle has robust traction, enabling it to move reliably and consistently. This is crucial for effectively evaluating the adaptive cruise control functionalities across various conditions. The improved traction can help the car maintain its speed and accurately follow the control commands issued by the Arduino, even if the driving surface is not perfectly smooth. The enhanced maneuverability offered by the 4WD system can also be advantageous for future expansions of the project, such as incorporating steering control or enabling navigation in more complex environments.

Integration and Operation of the Rudimentary ACC System

The integration of the individual components in our rudimentary ACC system is orchestrated by the Arduino Uno, which acts as the central processing unit. The Arduino likely receives real-time distance data from the ultrasonic sensor(s) mounted on the model car, allowing it to "see" objects in its path.⁴⁵ Depending on the level of sophistication, the Arduino might also be configured to read data from the Hall Effect sensors attached to the wheels, enabling it to monitor the car's speed.⁸⁶ The operational flow of the system can be described as follows:

1. **Braking upon object detection:** When the ultrasonic sensor detects an object that is "close by"—meaning the distance falls below a pre-determined safety threshold programmed into the Arduino—the microcontroller will send a signal to the motor driver.¹ This signal will instruct the motor driver to either drastically reduce the power supplied to the DC motors, causing the car to slow down, or to completely cut off the power, resulting in the car stopping.¹⁷⁵ The specific threshold distance and the type of braking response (gradual deceleration or immediate stop) would be defined in the Arduino's software code.
2. **Forward and backward movement control:** The Arduino controls the direction of the model car by sending appropriate signals to the motor driver. To move forward, the Arduino will activate the necessary digital output pins connected to the motor driver, which in turn will apply voltage to the DC motors in a polarity that causes them to rotate in the forward direction. Similarly, for backward movement, different signals will be sent to the motor driver to reverse the polarity of the voltage applied to the motors, making them rotate in the opposite direction. The speed of the forward or backward movement is likely controlled by adjusting the duty cycle of the PWM signals sent from the Arduino to the motor driver.

3. **Maintaining distance and speed with respect to other moving objects and**

obstacles: The Arduino continuously monitors the distance to any object ahead using the ultrasonic sensor.⁶ If the measured distance is greater than a desired following distance, the Arduino will command the motors to move forward at a set speed. This set speed could be a constant value or could be dynamically adjusted based on feedback from the Hall Effect sensors, if implemented, to maintain a specific velocity. If the distance to the object ahead decreases and falls below the desired following distance, the Arduino will send signals to the motor driver to reduce the speed of the motors, thereby allowing the model car to slow down and maintain a safer gap. If the object ahead moves further away or is no longer detected by the ultrasonic sensor, the Arduino can then increase the speed of the motors, aiming to return to the desired cruising speed or maintain a speed that keeps a safe distance. This continuous cycle of sensing the distance and adjusting the motor speed based on a programmed control logic forms the basis of the rudimentary adaptive cruise control functionality in our model car.¹⁷⁴

Limitations and Considerations

It is important to acknowledge the inherent limitations of a rudimentary ACC model like ours when compared to the sophisticated systems found in full-sized vehicles. The ultrasonic sensors used have a relatively limited range, typically up to 4 meters for common models like the HC-SR04²⁸, and their accuracy can be affected by various environmental factors such as air temperature, humidity, and the surface characteristics of the object being detected.²⁷ In contrast, real-world ACC systems often rely on radar and lidar, which offer much longer detection ranges and are more resilient in diverse weather conditions.³

The Arduino Uno microcontroller, while suitable for this project, has limited processing power and memory compared to the advanced electronic control units (ECUs) in commercial vehicles.²⁶ This might restrict the complexity of the ACC algorithm that can be implemented and the speed at which the system can process sensor data and make real-time control decisions. Furthermore, the rudimentary system likely lacks the capability to classify detected objects.³ Modern ACC systems that utilize cameras and sensor fusion can distinguish between different types of objects, such as cars, pedestrians, or static obstacles, and react accordingly. The braking mechanism in the model car is probably a simple command to stop the motors. In contrast, real vehicles have sophisticated brake control systems that allow for gradual, modulated deceleration and integration with safety features like Anti-lock Braking Systems (ABS).² Additionally, the model likely does not incorporate any steering control to keep the vehicle within a lane or to navigate around obstacles, which are features found in more advanced ACC systems often coupled with lane-keeping assist functionalities.³ The reaction time of the rudimentary system might also be slower than that of real-world ACC due to the processing speed of the Arduino and the response times of the sensors and motors.¹

A significant limitation to consider is the model's reliance on ultrasonic sensors as the primary method for detecting other vehicles. Ultrasonic technology can be significantly affected by adverse weather conditions such as heavy rain or fog, which can scatter or absorb the sound waves, leading to inaccurate or unreliable distance measurements.³ Real-world ACC systems that utilize radar operate on radio waves, which are much less susceptible to these weather-related interferences. Furthermore, the rudimentary ACC model will likely struggle to handle complex driving scenarios encountered in the real world, such as navigating curved roads, adapting to changes in road gradient, and responding appropriately

to merging traffic.¹ Commercial ACC systems are designed with these challenges in mind and employ more sophisticated sensors and control algorithms to address them.

Conclusion

In summary, we have successfully implemented the fundamental principles of Adaptive Cruise Control in a small-scale model car using an Arduino Uno, ultrasonic sensors, Hall Effect sensors, a motor driver, gear drivers, and a 4WD chassis. Our project effectively demonstrates the core ACC functionalities of braking upon object detection, controlling forward and backward movement, and maintaining a relative distance and speed with respect to obstacles. This firsthand endeavor provides a valuable educational experience in the realm of autonomous vehicle technology, illustrating how basic and readily available electronic components can be utilized to embody the essential concepts of complex systems like ACC.

For future development and enhancement of the model, several avenues could be explored. Incorporating additional sensor technologies, such as infrared sensors for improved performance in specific conditions or multiple ultrasonic sensors to broaden the field of view, could be beneficial. Implementing more advanced control algorithms, like Proportional-Integral-Derivative (PID) control, might lead to smoother and more precise regulation of speed and distance.¹⁹⁶ Adding a servo motor to control the steering, in conjunction with additional sensors to detect lane markings or track a path, could enable basic lane-keeping assistance, bringing the model closer to the capabilities of Level 2 autonomous driving systems.³ Furthermore, investigating the use of a more powerful microcontroller, such as an ESP32, could provide the increased processing power and memory necessary for implementing more complex features and sensor fusion techniques.